# Section 1.1: Linear Regression

AI-IM Class — Lecture Notes [Student Copy]

## 1 Problem Setup

Suppose we observe $n$ data points $(x_i, y_i)$ and believe there is an approximately linear relationship between $x$ and $y$, corrupted by noise. For example:

| $x$ | 1 | 2 | 3 | 4 |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| $y$ | 1 | 3 | 3 | 5 |

We want to find a line

$$\hat{y} = wx + b$$

that best fits this data, where $w$ is the **slope (weight)** and $b$ is the **intercept (bias)**.

Because of noise, no single line passes through all four points exactly. We therefore need a way to quantify *how wrong* our predictions are, so that we can find the *least wrong* line.

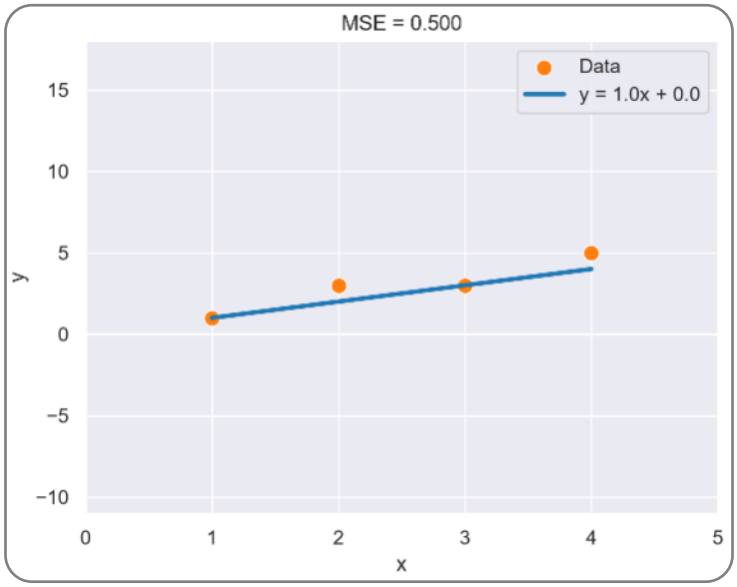



Figure 1: Scatter plot of the data points $(x_i, y_i)$ with a candidate line $\hat{y} = wx + b$.

## 2 Cost Function: Mean Squared Error

For a given choice of $w$ and $b$, the **residual** at point $i$ is

$$e_i = y_i - \hat{y}_i = y_i - wx_i - b.$$

We measure the overall fit using the **Mean Squared Error (MSE)**:

$$J(w, b) = _____ \quad (1)$$

Several properties make MSE a natural choice:

- Squaring makes all errors positive, so positive and negative residuals do not cancel.
- Larger errors are penalised more than smaller ones (quadratic penalty).
- $J = 0$ is a perfect fit; otherwise the larger $J$, the worse the fit.
- $J(w, b)$ is a smooth, bowl-shaped (convex) surface in the $(w, b)$ plane, guaranteeing a unique global minimum.

**Example 2.1** (Evaluating $J$ for a candidate line)**.** Using the data from Section 1, try the line $w = 1$, $b = 1$, i.e. $\hat{y} = x + 1$:

| $x_i$ | $y_i$ | $\hat{y}_i = x_i + 1$ | $e_i = y_i - \hat{y}_i$ | $e_i^2$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | 1 | 2 | $-1$ | 1 |
| 2 | 3 | 3 | 0 | 0 |
| 3 | 3 | 4 | $-1$ | 1 |
| 4 | 5 | 5 | 0 | 0 |
| | | | | $\sum = 2$ |

Therefore

$$J(1, 1) = \frac{1}{4}(1 + 0 + 1 + 0) = \frac{2}{4} = 0.5.$$

Now try $w = 1$, $b = 0.5$, i.e. $\hat{y} = x + 0.5$. The predictions are $1.5, 2.5, 3.5, 4.5$, giving residuals $-0.5, 0.5, -0.5, 0.5$, so

$$J(1, 0.5) = _____$$

The second line has a smaller $J$, so it fits the data better. Searching over every $(w, b)$ by trial and error is impractical, which motivates finding the minimum analytically.

**Goal:** find the values of $w$ and $b$ that minimise $J(w, b)$.

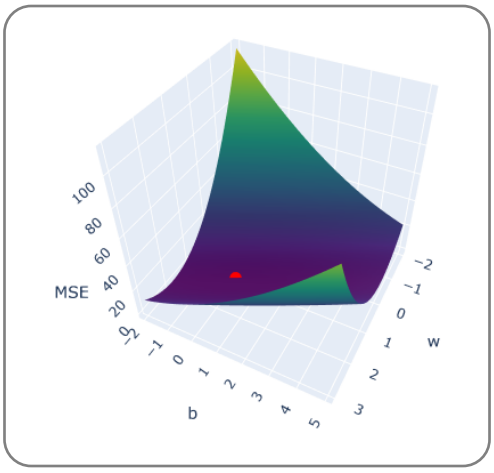



Figure 2: MSE surface $J(w, b)$ for the data in Section 1. The minimum occurs at $(w, b) = (1.2, 0)$.

# 3 Minimising MSE: Scalar Calculus Derivation

Because $J$ is smooth and convex, the minimum occurs where both partial derivatives vanish simultaneously:

$$\frac{\partial J}{\partial b} = 0 \qquad \text{and} \qquad \frac{\partial J}{\partial w} = 0.$$

This gives two equations in two unknowns, which we solve sequentially.

## 3.1 Step 1: Solve for $b$

Differentiating (1) with respect to $b$:

$$\frac{\partial J}{\partial b} = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n} 2(y_i - wx_i - b)(-1) = \frac{-2}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - wx_i - b) = 0.$$

Expanding and dividing by $n$:

$$\frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n} y_i = w \cdot \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i + b \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \bar{y} = w\bar{x} + b.$$

$$b = \underline{\qquad\qquad\qquad\qquad\qquad\qquad}$$

**Interpretation.** For any slope $w$, the optimal line always passes through the *centroid* $(\bar{x}, \bar{y})$ of the dataset.

## 3.2 Step 2: Solve for $w$

Differentiating (1) with respect to $w$:

$$\frac{\partial J}{\partial w} = \frac{-2}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - wx_i - b)\, x_i = 0.$$

Substituting $b = \bar{y} - w\bar{x}$ and letting $\tilde{x}_i = x_i - \bar{x}$, $\tilde{y}_i = y_i - \bar{y}$:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - wx_i - \bar{y} + w\bar{x})\, x_i = 0 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \sum_{i=1}^{n}\left(\tilde{y}_i - w\tilde{x}_i\right) x_i = 0.$$

Expanding and noting that $\sum_i \tilde{x}_i = 0$:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} \tilde{y}_i\, x_i = w\sum_{i=1}^{n} \tilde{x}_i\, x_i \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \sum_{i=1}^{n} \tilde{x}_i\tilde{y}_i = w\sum_{i=1}^{n} \tilde{x}_i^2.$$

$w =$ _____

**Interpretation.** The optimal slope equals the *sample covariance* of $x$ and $y$ divided by the *sample variance* of $x$. A positive covariance (both tend to increase together) yields a positive slope, and vice versa.

### 3.3 Numerical Result

For the dataset above, $\bar{x} = 2.5$ and $\bar{y} = 3$:

| $i$ | $x_i - \bar{x}$ | $y_i - \bar{y}$ | $(x_i - \bar{x})(y_i - \bar{y})$ | $(x_i - \bar{x})^2$ |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | $-1.5$ | $-2$ | 3.0 | 2.25 |
| 2 | $-0.5$ | 0 | 0.0 | 0.25 |
| 3 | 0.5 | 0 | 0.0 | 0.25 |
| 4 | 1.5 | 2 | 3.0 | 2.25 |
| | | **Sum** | 6 | 5 |

$w =$ _____, $b =$ _____.

The fitted line is $\hat{y} =$ _____, with:

MSE = _____ $\neq 0$.

The non-zero MSE reflects irreducible noise in the data — not a failure of the method.

## 4 Generalisation: Multiple Features

With a single feature we derived two scalar equations. In practice, a data point often has $d$ features $x_1, x_2, \ldots, x_d$, and the model becomes:

$$\hat{y} = w_1 x_1 + w_2 x_2 + \cdots + w_d x_d + b.$$

Taking a partial derivative for each of the $d+1$ parameters and setting them to zero would produce $d+1$ scalar equations with the same structure. Rather than repeating this process, we rewrite everything in **matrix form**, which handles all parameters simultaneously.

## 4.1 Matrix Notation

Collect all parameters into a single vector:

$$\boldsymbol{\theta} = \begin{bmatrix} b \\ w_1 \\ \vdots \\ w_d \end{bmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{d+1}.$$

Stack all $n$ data points row-by-row into the **design matrix** $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times (d+1)}$, prepending a column of ones to account for the bias:

$$\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & x_1^{(1)} & x_2^{(1)} & \cdots & x_d^{(1)} \\ 1 & x_1^{(2)} & x_2^{(2)} & \cdots & x_d^{(2)} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 1 & x_1^{(n)} & x_2^{(n)} & \cdots & x_d^{(n)} \end{bmatrix}, \qquad \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} y^{(1)} \\ y^{(2)} \\ \vdots \\ y^{(n)} \end{bmatrix}.$$

With this notation, the vector of all predictions is simply $\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta}$, and the MSE cost becomes:

$$J(\boldsymbol{\theta}) = _____$$

**Notation.** Although $\mathbf{X}$ is a matrix, $\mathbf{y} - \mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is a *vector* (the residual vector $\mathbf{e}$), so $\|\cdot\|$ here is the ordinary **Euclidean (L2) vector norm**, not a matrix norm. For any $\mathbf{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$,

$$\|\mathbf{v}\| = \|\mathbf{v}\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum_{i=1}^{n} v_i^2} \qquad \Longrightarrow \qquad \|\mathbf{v}\|_2^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{n} v_i^2 = \mathbf{v}^\top \mathbf{v}.$$

Applied to the residuals $e_i = y^{(i)} - \hat{y}^{(i)}$, the squared norm $\|\mathbf{e}\|_2^2 = \sum_i e_i^2$ is exactly the sum of squared errors, so dividing by $n$ recovers the MSE in (1). The subscript 2 is often omitted, and since $\|-\mathbf{v}\| = \|\mathbf{v}\|$, we may equally write $\|\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - \mathbf{y}\|_2^2$.

## 4.2 The Normal Equations

Setting the gradient of $J$ with respect to $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ to zero and expanding step by step:

$$\begin{aligned}
&\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} J = \mathbf{0} \\
\Rightarrow\ &\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \frac{1}{n} \|\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - \mathbf{y}\|_2^2 = \mathbf{0} \\
\Rightarrow\ &\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \left(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - \mathbf{y}\right)^\top \left(\mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - \mathbf{y}\right) = \mathbf{0} \\
\Rightarrow\ &\nabla_{\boldsymbol{\theta}} \left(\boldsymbol{\theta}^\top \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - 2\boldsymbol{\theta}^\top \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y} + \mathbf{y}^\top \mathbf{y}\right) = \mathbf{0} \\
\Rightarrow\ &2\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta} - 2\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y} = \mathbf{0} \\
\Rightarrow\ &\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}\,\boldsymbol{\theta} = \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}.
\end{aligned}$$

Provided $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X}$ is invertible, the unique solution is:

$$\boldsymbol{\theta} = _____$$

This is the **Normal Equation** — a single closed-form formula that solves linear regression for any number of features $d$ and any number of data points $n$ (provided $n > d + 1$ and the columns of $\mathbf{X}$ are linearly independent).

# 5 Example: Two Binary Features

**Example 5.1.** Consider a dataset with two binary inputs where the true relationship is $y = x_1 + x_2$:

| $x_1$ | $x_2$ | $y$ |
|---|---|---|
| 0 | 0 | 0 |
| 0 | 1 | 1 |
| 1 | 0 | 1 |
| 1 | 1 | 2 |

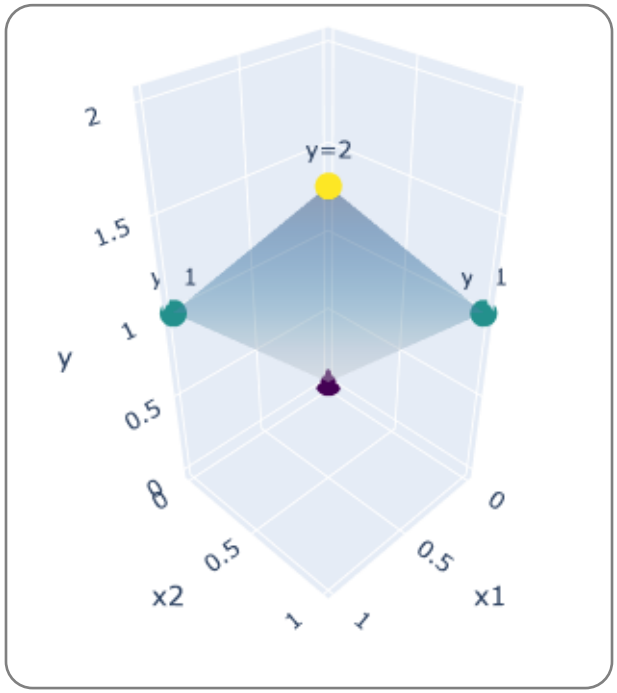



Figure 3: Scatter plot of the four points in the example. The true relationship is $y = x_1 + x_2$.

The design matrix and target vector are:

$$\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix}, \qquad \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Computing:

$$\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 2 \end{bmatrix}, \qquad \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 \\ 3 \\ 3 \end{bmatrix}.$$

Solving $(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})\,\boldsymbol{\theta} = \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$ gives:

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so $\hat{y} =$ _____ with MSE = _____.

The normal equations recover the exact underlying relationship because the data is truly linear.

**Looking ahead.** In the later section, we will use the same four input points $\{(0,0), (0,1), (1,0), (1,1)\}$ but change the output labels to {0, 1, 1, 0} (the XOR function). Applying the normal equations to that dataset yields $w_1 = w_2 = 0$, $b = \frac{1}{2}$ — the model simply predicts the mean 0.5 everywhere, achieving MSE = 0.25. This is the best any linear model can do on XOR, which motivates the need for non-linearity.

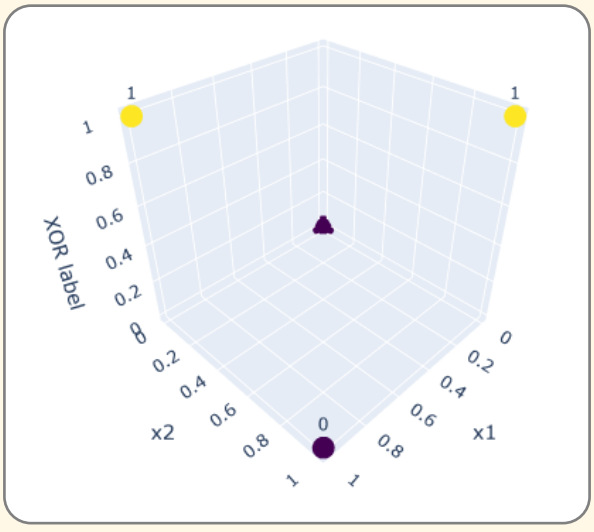



Figure 4:

# 6 Summary

| | |
|---|---|
| **Model** | $\hat{y} = \boldsymbol{\theta}^\top \mathbf{x}$ |
| **Loss function** | MSE: $J = \frac{1}{n}\|\mathbf{y} - \mathbf{X}\boldsymbol{\theta}\|^2$ |
| **Closed-form solution** | Normal equations: $\boldsymbol{\theta} = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1}\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$ |
| **Works well when** | The true relationship is (approximately) linear |

**Up next:** What if the output $y$ is a *category* rather than a continuous number? Predicting a probability requires a different model and a different loss function — logistic regression with cross-entropy.